BRILL

ORIENTE MODERNO 102 (2022) 1-19

ORIENTE MODERNO

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The Social Status of Muslim Women in Turkestan before and after Russian Colonization

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Abstract

The article provides a historical review of some facts to reveal, in general terms, the place of Muslim women in Turkestan, including their roles in family and society during the pre-colonial period. As a result of the conquest of Central Asia by the Russian Empire and the establishment of the Governorate-General of Turkestan, the Russian administration began to consider the issues of Muslim women as an important aspect of its colonial policy. The Russian colonial authorities were attentive to this issue in order to strengthen their position in the region and weaken the influence of Islam among the local (mostly sedentary) population. Representatives of the colonial administration tried to influence Muslim women through intermediaries in the form of educated Russian, Tatar, and Jewish women. By comparing two periods at the start and end of the Russian imperial era, it is possible to see the image of a Muslim woman at various stages of history.

Keywords

Muslim women – Turkestan – Russian colonization – women's issues – emancipation – print media – imperial authority

This article begins by analyzing the role of Muslim women in Central Asian society prior to the incorporation of the area into the Russian Empire.[1] This

1 I would like to express my gratitude to Professor Carol Stevens of Colgate University and Bakhodir Pasilov, PhD, senior research fellow, for their invaluable help in the preparation and publication of this article.

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will help to reveal the participation of local women in social, economic, as well as everyday life processes. Next, it discusses attitudes of the Russian colonial administration towards Muslim women in Turkestan, and the thoughts of local literati regarding the emancipation of women after the Russian colonial takeover.

From articles published in Turkestani newspapers and magazines in the late 19th and early 20th centuries, it is clear that the status of Muslim women was a pressing problem. Not only Russian imperial officials, but also the Turkic Muslim world had seen serious debates about the emancipation of Muslim women. Research for this essay relies not only on these articles but also manuscript sources, archival documents, and memoirs of some Russian functionaries and European travelers.

There are several important themes that emerge: (1) the role of lifestyle (sedentary, half-sedentary, and nomadic); (2) the impact of *sharīʿah* and local customary law on women's everyday life both before and after colonization; (3) the extent to which women preserved their status in the family and society based on Turkic traditions; (4) the role of women in social groups before and after colonization; and (5) transformations in the roles of Muslim women in local society were a result of reforms carried out by the Russian Empire.

A Brief Analysis of Women's Social Status in the Muslim Society of Turkestan Prior to Russian Colonization

There is very limited information in the written sources of Central Asia about the position of women. This state of affairs prevents one from the possibility of doing a thorough and systematic study of their lives. What prominently emerges is women's roles as detailed in documents of inheritance, purchases, marriage, and *waqf*.[2] Though these documents don't reveal all aspects of women's lives, they nevertheless play an important role in studying their rights as well as their participation in family and society.[3]

During the era on which we are focusing, individual women succeeded in engraving their names in the annals of history by performing remarkable deeds in social, political, economic, and cultural spheres. In particular,

2 *Waqf* is an Arabic word standing for properties like profitable lands, shops, caravanserais, mills etc., designated to support mosques, madrasas and alike.

3 The author has been conducting research on a grant PZ-20170929569 entitled "Cataloging *waqf* documents on women's role in the social life (on the example of the Khanate of Bukhara in the 16th-20th centuries)" at the department of Antiquity and Middle Ages of the Institute of History, Uzbekistan Academy of Sciences.

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women of the Juybar[4] family — a family which played an important role in the Khanate of Bukhara[5] — are excellent examples. One of these women was Abdurahim Khwaja's (d. 1616) daughter *Aypashsha bibi* who married her uncle Tajiddin Khwaja's (d. 1646) son Muhammad Yusuf Khwaja (d. 1651).[6] The marriage between close relatives can be explained by the fact that during a divorce, it insured that the property of ruling dynasties and the upper classes was not divided. After the death of her husband, *Aypashsha bibi* became an important actor as the only legal successor to these lands. Demonstrating her standing is that this woman had two *waqf*, independently established, and a resolution by a judge or *qadi*[7] in her favor.[8]

Another example of women's economic activities included *waqf* properties established by women such as *Musulman Enaga Banu*. A *waqf* document that mentions her dated 1735 contains information about lands and villages turned into *waqf* to build a mosque in Hisar (*Hisar-i qadim*) near Bukhara.[9] *Musulman Enaga Banu*, the daughter of a well-known military commander of the time, Nurbek *biy*, built this mosque at her own expense. The mosque was completed in 1642 and was named after her.[10]

Waqf properties were often managed by *mutawalli*[11] who were responsible for the distribution of income from property, and who were in charge of its economic activity as well as rental of the property. In recompense, the *mutawalli* received 1/10 of the income of the *waqf*.[12] The appointment of male

4 Juybar Sheikhs are descendants of a famous family who played important role in the political, religious and economic life of the Khanate of Bukhara in the 16th through 17th centuries.

5 The Khanate of Bukhara existed from 1533 to 1920 when it was liquidated by Soviets.

6 Muhammad Yusuf Khwaja had a number of plots of *suiurgal* (Mongol for gift, present) land during the reign of Bukharan Ashtarkhanid rulers Imamquli Khan (d. 1642), Nadir Muhammad (d. 1645), Abdulaziz Khan (d. 1681).

7 The term *qāḍī* indicates one who executes or makes decisions; a person who fulfils the duty of a judge in Muslim countries.

8 Natsionalnii Arkhiv Uzbekistana (National Arkhive of Uzbekistan, hereinafter NAUz). f. 1-323, op.1, d.1246/96.

9 NAUz. f. 1-323, op.1, d.823/5.

10 G'oliba Zhuraeva underlines that in other researches this name is mentioned in connection with a male name. See *Imenitye zhenshiny pozdnesrednevekovoi Bukhary. Uzbekistan v srednie veka: istoriia i kul'tura*. Tashkent, Fan, 2003, p. 106.

11 *Mutawallī* is a manager; one who is in charge of managing expenses and income of *waqf* property. See: Shamsiev P. *Navoii asarlari lug'hati*. Tashkent, Fan, 1972, p. 45.

12 *Muatwalli*s in the *waqfnamas* of Khwaja Ahmad Yassavi and Khwaja Ahrar were privileged to use 1/10 of the income. After the demise of Mihr Sultan Khanum a mutawalli was given right to use 5% (or 5/100) of the income. This information clearly shows that there was no exact criterion that mutawallis' income was systematic. See for details: Juvanmardiev A. *XVI-XIX asrlarda Farg'honada yer-suv masalalariga doir*. Tashkent, Fan,

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mutawalli is particularly emphasized. Almost all *waqf* documents stated that male relations should be appointed as *mutawalli*.[13] If there were no men of the male line, the right to be *mutawalli* was passed on to male descendants (or, exceptionally, strangers) in the female line. This "practice" limited women's right to appoint themselves or others as *mutawalli*. That is why women who were the founders of independent *waqf* were often also the managers of the *waqf*. That is, they "appointed themselves" as founder of the post, and it continued until their death.[14]

Furthermore, women could be appointed to this position by the special decree of a khan. For example, in 1564 a woman named *Begim Sultan* was appointed as *mutawalli* for the shrine or *mazar*[15] of Shamsiddin Bashir that was built by Abdulla Khan (d. 1598), who had ruled in Bukhara. Later, in 1581, the Supreme *Sadr*[16] (Divan-i Sadara-i Aʿla) appointed Sheikh Abu-l Qasim's daughter, a certain Agha Kalan, as *mutawalli* of that same shrine on the order of Abdulla Khan.[17]

Unfortunately, documents (or special registers) related to *waqf* properties managed by female *mutawallis* are rare. So, it is hard to say if the women managed the *waqf* themselves, independently, or whether they did so through representatives. However, there are some points in this regard. *Aypashsha bibi*, mentioned above, appointed Mullah Jon Divan, son of Mullah Sharif's son, as her trusted representative in legalizing the *waqf* property in Saʿd Khwaja's grave. Interestingly, *Aypashsha bibi*'s personal seal appeared among the 24 appended seals.[18] In my opinion, women who founded *waqf* and assumed their mandate

1965, p. 29; Mukminova R. *Istorii agrarnykh otnoshenii v Uzbekistane XVI v. Po materialam "Waqf-Name"*. Tashkent, Fan, 1966, p. 38.

13 This state of affairs is more commonly seen in the genealogical *waqf* documents, and the existence of this "rule" has in some ways ensured that property is not passed on to foreigners.

14 The person who established the *waqf* property had a right to appoint himself/herself or his/her close relatives as a *mutawallī*.

15 *Mazar* is a place of worship; usually the grave or shrine of a Muslim saint. On this topic, see *Islam: 'entsiklopedicheskii slovar'. Otvetstvenniy sekretar' Prozorov S.* Moskva, Nauka, 1991, p. 151.

16 In Arabic, the term *ṣadr* means a governor of an earthly domain; administrator of state's or province's *waqf* properties.

17 Kazakov, B. *Dokumental'nye pamiatniki Srednei Azii*. Tashkent, Fan, 1987, p. 18.

18 Some of these seals have been severely damaged, so we could not detect the stamp of Aypashsha in the process of the analyzing the document. But Lola Rahmonova said in her research that this seal was available. See: Rahmonova L. *Istorii khoziaistva shaikhov Juybari. Dissertatsiia na soiskanie stepeni kandidata istoricheskikh nauk*. Tashkent, 1969, p. 54.

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as *mutawallī* independently managed their business affairs. The *wakil*[19] worked in some places not only for women, but also for men. Particularly, the Juybar *sheikhs* had their special *wakils* in the cities and villages who assisted in the acquisition of new land and property.

After the colonization of Turkestan by the Russian Empire, the Tsarist government pursued a prudent policy towards waqf properties and prepared the ground for their gradual liquidation.[20] In 1887, the administration of the Fergana region checked the waqf documents belonging to one of the largest madrasahs, Ming Oyim in the city of Kokand.[21] In 1889, the Fergana administration recognized them as genuine (legal). However in 1904, the regional administration rechecked these documents and concluded that they were fake. As a result, all income the madrasah had received from the waqf were transferred to the state treasury.[22]

In particular, in 1867, General Kaufman developed a project for the management of Sirdarya and Semirechenskiy regions. The project specified the need to review the waqf property and compile a list of *waqf*s[23] that were exempt and those not exempt from tax. In addition, it was ordered that recently created waqfs should pay taxes to the state.[24] Articles 265, 266, 257, 286, 289, 299 of the "Regulations for the administration of the Turkestan Territory" were directly related to waqf properties.[25]

One of the issues that caused great interest among Europeans who came to Central Asia for various purposes before Turkestan became a colony, was females' lifestyle, occupation, appearance, and their participation in family and society. In particular, women's role in society was defined for these visiting Europeans primarily by women's appearance. That is, the *paranja* (veil) worn

19 *Vakil* is a trusted person who is given the right to manage deals (business). According to archival sources, women's close relatives such as their husbands, fathers, and brothers were mostly appointed as their trusted representative.

20 *Waqf* property was liquidated by the Soviet authorities in Turkestan, however, during the period of Russian colonization, part of *waqf*s under various pretexts were turned into state property, and some of their documents were recognized as fake (illegal).

21 Ming Oyim was a wife of the Kokand khan Norbutakhan (d. 1798) and a mother of Alimkhan.

22 Alimov I. *O`zbekistonda waqf mulklarining tugatilishi tarixi*. Tashkent, Fan, 2009, p. 40-41.

23 There were two types *waqf*s in Turkestan: those that were exempt from paying taxes and duties were called *oq waqflar* (white *waqf*s) and those who which paid taxes and duties were called *qora waqflar* (black waqfs).

24 Boltaboyev S. *Turkistondagi waqf mulklari tarixi. O`quv uslubiy qo`llanma. Namangan Shahar*. Namangan, 2005, p. 24.

25 NAUz. f-19, d. 33514.

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by women in Central Asia.[26] In addition, their participation in social and community affairs attracted the attention of Europeans. More information about Central Asian women can be found in the memoirs of Arminius Vamberi.[27] Vamberi closely observed women's lifestyles in the *haram*.[28] The *haram* was directly related to the khan's household and the interior life of the palace. It was forbidden for foreigners to enter it. Thus, a French military officer in Persia (Iran), Gaspar Druville, stated that "such information could only be obtained from women or persons close to the *haram*".[29] The situation was similar in Central Asia. In his memoirs, Arminius Vamberi tries to offer more detail about the Khivan khans, based on information from those who had seen directly and from people close to the palace. According to him, the queens were mostly from the Khan's family. In rare instances, daughters of some officials who weren't of the Khan's family could be raised to the rank of queen. Although the khan had unrestricted power, he was reputed to be gentle with his wives and close friends in the *haram*. This treatment of women was, of course, the result of local culture, customs, and traditions. In particular, the sources of the Timurid[30] era state that it was a grave sin, even a crime, to disregard or insult women.[31] Respect and care for women was paid not only by high classes, but also among males of the middle and lower social strata. Specifically,

26 The word *paranja/faranǧiyyah* means womens's gown; is worn along with veil to cover the face. A long robe with false sleeves. According to the researcher Nina Lobacheva, the paranja has always been a ritual costume by the 19th century. It was widely known as the daily street dress among Uzbek, Karakalpak, Turkmen, and Tajik women, without losing its purpose. See: Lobacheva N. *Istorii sredneaziatskogo kostiuma* (*zhenskie golovnye nakidki-khalaty*)//*Sovetskaia ethnographiia*. Moskva, 1965, p. 34-35.

27 Vamberi Armini. *Puteshestvie po Srednei Azii: Opisanie poezdki iz Tegrana cherez Turkmenskuiu step' po vostochnomu beregu Kaspiiskogo moria v Khivu, Bukhara i Samarkand, peredpriniatoe v 1863 godu s nauchnoiu tseliu po porucheniiu Vengerskoi Akademii v Peshte, chlenom eia Armini Vamberi*. Turkestanskii sbornik. Saint-Petersburg, 1869, vol. XII, p. 145-165; Vamberi Armini. *Puteshestvie po Srednei Azii*. Moskva, Vostochnaia literature, 2003.

28 The word *ḥaram* means forbidden, holy, sacred sites Mecca and Medina, Khram, female. See *s.v.* « haram », in: *Arabic-Russian Dictionary*. Sostavitel, Baranov Kharlampiy (ed.). Moscow, Nauka, 1970, vol. I, p. 210-211. See also: s.v. « A private house, a non-residential area, an in-house courtyard ». Shamsiev Porso (ed.). *Navoi Dictionary*. p. 767 In the Muslim world, women live separately, and some of the yard or palace is specially reserved for them.

29 Sochinenie Gaspara Druvilya. *Perevod s frantsuzskago. Chast' pervaya*. Moskva, Tipografii Augusta Semena. 1828, p. 8.

30 The Timurids dynasty ruled in Mawerannahr and Iran in 1370-1506.

31 Ibn Arabshah. *Ajaiib al-makdur fi tarikhi Taimur* (Wonders of fate in the history of Timur). Ubaydulla Uvatov (ed. and transl). Tashkent, Fan, 1992, vol. I, p. 258-259.

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A. Burns notes that "In Central Asia, even the most vulnerable and malevolent man cares and shows mercy for the woman".[32]

It is noteworthy that these women did not spend much time dressing or for self-care. The reason was that they had little spare time. According to customs in the Khiva Khanate,[33] some of the khan's clothing, carpets, and other items were made by the women living in the *haram*. It is also possible to suggest that they had prepared some items that they needed for themselves and would use them in everyday life. In Bukhara, women in the emir's *haram* not only sewed clothes for the emir but also for themselves. The sources of the Kokand Khanate[34] do not report on this issue. However, the document assigning women to sew dresses and garments for the palace's needs during the *hashar*[35] is stored in the archives of the Kokand khans.[36] This document does not explicitly state what the women were sewing in the *hashar*. Therefore, it is possible to propose that they must have sewn bed linens, or dresses for a wedding ceremony or any other event. Life in the haram was based on specific rules and was often governed by the khan's mother. For example, the haram in the Bukhara palace was under the control of Amir Nasrullah's mother and his grandmother *Hakim ayim*.[37] There is no specific information about the range of the issues that were controlled. They probably controlled issues such as food, medicine, clothes, jewelry, and recruiting concubines for the *haram*. And the main queen of the palace also had her own seal. For example, there survives a document sealed by the daughter of Kokand's khan Sher Muhammad Alikhan (1822-1841), Nor Chuchuk, and is nowadays kept in the archives of the Kokand Khan.[38]

European travelers were also interested in locals who were settled, half-settled, and nomadic women. According to them, Turkmen women were very beautiful and had no *paranjah*. These women covered their heads by putting on a large scarf and *chalmah*[39] worn on top.[40] It was also possible to see nomadic Kyrgyz women who wouldn't cover their faces, and they were more

32 *Puteshestvie v Bukharu leitenanta Ost-Indskoi komponeiskoi sluzhby Aleksandra Bornsa. Vtoraia chast*. Moskva, Universitetskaiia tipografiya, 1848, p. 84.

33 The Khiva Khanate existed in 1512-1920 and was eliminated by the Soviet government.

34 The Kokand Khanate existed in 1710-1876 and was eliminated by the Russian Empire.

35 Hashar is a collective work to be done by all individuals of a given community on a voluntary basis. Ma'rufov Zarif. *Uzbek tilining izohli lughati. 2-zhild*. Moskva, Russkiy yazik, 1981, p. 691.

36 *Troitskaiia A. Katalog arkhiva kokandskikh khanov XIX veka*. Moskva, Nauka, 1968, p. 361.

37 Armini Vamberi. *Puteshestvie po Srednei Azii*. 124.

38 NAUz. f.1043, d. 2759.

39 *Chalma* is a turban (white fabric wrapped around one's head).

40 *Puteshestvie v Bukharu*. 48.

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liberal in comparison to settled women.[41] For example, girls from the settled peoples in Central Asia weren't restricted in baring their faces up to the age of 10-12.[42] They would not even hide themselves from boys of the same age living in the close neighborhoods.[43]

European authors report that Central Asian women appealed to the Khan or *qadi* in their complaints and appeals.[44] Usually, the court proceedings were examined in a mosque or a private home of the *qadi* and *mufti*.[45] But people could appeal directly to them or to the khan himself. In particular, in the Bukhara and Khiva Khanates the ruler received individuals who appealed every day for a fixed period of time (lasting four hours according to some information). These individuals were women too, and their complaints were often reflected in family disputes and in dealing with spouses. The plaintiffs were presented to the Khan individually when they arrived in his presence, with *qadis* sitting next to him. Many of the women wrote their own petitions. Family conflicts often ended with reconciliation between spouses.

According to sources, a well-established tradition existed in Central Asia when a khan or an official listened to women's complaints on family issues. This can also be observed in the period of the Temurids (1370-1500), Shaibanids (or Abulkhairids, 1500-1601), and Ashtarkharids (or Janids, 1601-1757). An interesting piece of evidence dates to the Shaybanid period. In particular, a woman residing in Ahangaran (a village near Tashkent) was divorced (*talaq*)[46] by her husband. The woman first approached Keldi Muhammadkhan (d. 1532) asking him to reconcile her with her husband. According to the source, the woman had constantly lodged appeals to the khan for a month.[47] Actually, in practice, women's appeals were examined in a relatively short period of time. The focus was on the weight of the matter: complex or simple. Since the woman's

41 In some cases concubines and female slaves weren't obliged to wear *paranja*. See: Obidov H. *Din ham xotin-qizlar ozodligi*. Tashkent, 1929, p. 29.

42 According to Islamic rules, girls at nine were considered mature enough for marriage.

43 Lykoshin N. *Khoroshii ton na vostoke*. Saint-Petersburg, 1916, p. 42.

44 I have mentioned this in another article. See Hidirova Nargiza. "Marriage Practices: 18th to 20th century: Central Asia". In: *Encyclopedia of Women & Islamic cultures*.

45 *Muftī* derives from Arabic. The roles allow for the crucial right to comment, interpret, and implement religious laws.

46 *Talaq*, "divorce", derives from the Arabic *ṭalāq* and refers to the untying of something (knots). See: Maqsudkhwaja bin Mansurkhwaja. *The interpretation of the* Majmaʿ ul-makhud *or the concluding version*. Tashkent, Fan, 1996, p. 450. With the meaning of removing or breaking a marriage with a special statement, see also Sheikh Muhammad Sadiq Muhammad Yusuf. *Sharhi mukhtasari viqaiia*. Tashkent, Hilol, 2011, p. 446.

47 Wasifii Zainiddin Muhammad. *Badae'ul vaqea'*. Transl. by Naiim Narqulev. Tashkent, Fan, 1979, p. 131-132.

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appeals had been linked to one of the most difficult issues, that is, three *talaq* statements,[48] the process of consideration was much longer. The khan eventually had to send the woman to Sevuyunch Khwajakhan (or Suyunji Khwaja, d. 1526) with a special order because the woman's husband was in the service of this khan. More importantly, the woman handed the appeal over to the khan, not to the special clerk.

Women continued to appeal to officials, demanding protection of their rights. In particular, the administration of the Turkestan General-Governorship pursued a specific policy on social, economic, and judicial matters. In the judicial system, the laws of the *sharīʿah* and the *adat* had been preserved. In accordance with the regulations developed in 1867 and 1886, *qadis* were appointed for sedentary people, and *biys*[49] for the nomadic people, and provincial and *mirovoy* (reconciliation) courts were established. The work done by the Qadi and Biy had been written on a permanent record in accordance with the provisions of 1867. These registers also contained complaints about women's various issues.

In the documents of the colonial period of the Russian Empire, kept in archival funds, it is observed that women often appealed to the *qadi*, *biy* or *mirovoy* courts. The analysis of documents indicates that the appeals were primarily related to demanding *mahr*,[50] paying back the *qalin* (dowry),[51] laying claim to a husband's inheritance and the power to divorce, as well as access to his pension (for daily food, clothes, housing). Also, many of the complaints against a number of high-ranking organizations, dissatisfied with the decisions of some *pristavs*,[52] heads of *volosts*,[53] *qadis*, and *biys*, had been left unanswered or unfulfilled.

48 The Turkish word *bii* means head of tribal or tribal alliance; title of *aqsaqals* of nomadic and semi nomadic Turkic peoples. See: Ismoilov M, Sharopov A. *Tarikh atamalari lughhati*. Tashkent, Universitet, 2013, p. 69.

49 NAUz. f-233, op. 1, delo 11; f-437, op.1, delo 3, etc.

50 *Mahr* derives from Arabic and means a bride's marriage portion, sealing. See: *Arabic-Russian Dictionary*. vol. 11, p. 983. See also a definition that a woman's genitals are of the woman's dignity. Burhoniddin al Marg'inonii. Hidaiia. 1 zhild. Tashkent, Fan, 2001. p. 690.

51 Qalin — money given to parents of a bride when she gets married (or engaged). See: Budagov Lazer. Sravnitel'nyi slovar' turetsko-tatarskikh narechii. Tom.2. Sankt-Peterburg, Imperatorskiy akademi nauk, 1871. S. 25.

52 Pristav (Russian). An official who was sent to bring people to the grand duke's pr royal court in the Russian state in the 15th to 17th centuries; Police officer from 1782. See: Ismoilov M., Sharopov A. Tarikh atamalari lug'hati. B.344.

53 Volost' (Russian): an administrative unit which consists of a number of villages/settlements within an *uezd*, a chief of the unit. Ma'rufov Z. Uzbek tililning izohli lughhati. 1-Tom. Moskva, Russkiy yazik, 1981. B.162.

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In summary, before the Russian empire had colonized Turkestan, local Muslim women used their rights as much as possible to take an active part in the community's social life in the presence of men. In particular, women of the upper class were its leaders. However, local customs, traditions and Islamic Shari'a rules did not allow the Muslim women's lifestyle, problems and activities to be highlighted (exaggerated) in the community. Therefore women were "behind the curtain" (that is, non-public) and usually "isolated" from the public gaze.

As a result of the Russian Empire's colonization of Central Asia, issues of Muslim women in Turkistan were becoming a part of the Russian colonial policy. And this gave a rise to the problem of women's socialization in the society and it was put on the agenda.[54]

Muslim Women's Issues in the Colonial Policy of the Russian Empire in the Region

While the colonial policy of the Russian Empire in the Central Asian region is widely studied by many local and foreign researchers, a significant part of the studies have been devoted to religious and various economic as well as colonial governance issues in the country.[55]

54 Iskhakov F. Natsional'naiia politika tsarizma v Turkestane (1867-1917). Tashkent, Fan, 1997; Abdurakhimova N., Rustamova G. Kolonial'naiia systema vlasti v Turkestane vo 2-oi polovine XIX-1-chetverti XX vv. Tashkent, Fan, 1999; Alimova N. Politika tsarskoi Rossii v Turkestane po ogranicheniiu razvitiia natsional'nogo narodnogo obrazovaniia (1867-1917). Avtoreferat diss. kand. ist. nauk. Tashkent.2004; Litvinov P. Gosudarstvo i Islam v Russkom Turkestane (1865-1917): po arkhivnym materialam. Moskva, Ielets, 1998; Arapov D. Sistema gosudarstvennogo regulirovaniia islama v Rossiiskoi imperii (posledniia tret' 18-nachalo 20 v.). Moskva, MPGU, 2004; Mukhamedov Sh. Istoriko-istochnikovedcheskii analiz gosudarstvennogo regulirovaniia islama Rossiiskoi Imperiei v Turkestane (1864-1917).Tashkent, Baktriya Press. 2013 & others.

55 See. Abdullaeva Ia. Qoraqalpoghiston khotin-qizlari: kecha va bugun (19 asr okhiri 20 asr). Toshkent, Fan, 2004; Marianne Kamp. The new woman in Uzbekistan. *Islam, modernity, and unveiling under communism*. University of Washington press Seattle & London. 2006; Ismoilova D. Islom dinining Turkiston ijtimoii, siiosii, ma'navii haiotidagi o'rni va roli (XIX asr okhiri XX asr boshlari). Tarikh fanlari nomzodi ilmii darajasini olish uchun iozilgan dissertatsiia. Toshkent. 2006; Khabibullina A. Polozhenie zhenshiny v tatarskom obshestve v kontse XVIII-pervoi polovine XIX vv. (na materialakh Kazanskoi gubernii). Avtoreferat dissertatsii na soiskanie uchenoi stepeni kandidata istoricheskikh nauk. Kazan'. 2011; Gafarov A., Sattarova A. Problemy emansipatsii v musul'manskoi modernistskoi literature (konets XIX-nachalo XX vv.) // Sovremennye problem nauki i obrazovaniia. 2015. No.2-1; URL: https://science-education.ru (seen last 16.06.2017). Zhenshina i islam. Sbornik statei pod red. Alfred Bustanova. Moskva, Dizaart Tim. 2017.

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The issues of Turkistan's Muslim women in Russian colonial policies are still ignored by researchers. Some aspects of this topic have been reflected in some works, but they have not been adequately covered.[56] As a result of the conquest of the Central Asian territories by Russian imperial forces, and the establishment of the Turkestan General Governorship in 1867, a growing interest in Muslim women's issues was shown by the Russian colonial administration. Through analysis of archival documents, some memoirs, and press materials, there is tangible evidence that the Russian Empire was not indifferent to the issues of Muslim women. Here are two aspects of the issues: the first is that the lives of Muslim women in Central Asia was directly related to the religious policy of the Russian Empire in the country; and secondly, the impact of these policies on Muslim women was largely felt based on the activities of Russian female doctors. This influence was of a missionary nature.[57]

Of course, one of the major problems facing the Russian Empire was that, according to Russian officials, the local (mostly sedentary) population living in Turkestan was "very fanatical" in carrying out Islamic duties. Therefore, this issue was widely discussed in the late 1870's between the central government of Russia and the colonial administration in Turkestan. Central authorities assumed that future Muslim societies in Turkestan would be weakened by the creation and influence of the "Orthodox mission" against Muslims in order to reduce the influence of Islam.[58]

However, the representatives of the regional colonial powers were absolutely opposed to such an idea and thought it lacked perspective, and was even very dangerous. In particular, the governor of Turkestan, Konstantin P. Kaufman, wrote a letter addressed to the missionary society on January 16, 1869, where he tried to justify his inability to fulfill a missionary assignment on the territory of Turkestan.[59] Because missionary work in a Muslim-majority area was not without serious risks, therefore, the main task of missionary endeavors was

56 Ismoilova D. Islom dinining Turkiston ijtimoii, siiosii, ma'navii haiotidagi o'rni va roli … Bb. 34-40; Mukhamedov Sh. Istoriko-istochnikovedcheskii analiz gosudarstvennogo regulirovaniia islama … S. 42.

57 Lysenko Iu. Religioznaia politika kak mekhanizm zakrepleniia imperskikh pozitsii v Turkestanskom krae (vtoraia polovina XIX-nachalo XX vv.). www.allbest.ru (seen last 05.06.2017).

58 Sadvakasova Z. Dukhovnaia ekspansiia tsarizma v oblasti obrazovaniia i religii (vtoraia polovina XIX-nachalo XX vv.) Almaty. 2005. S. 93/ Lysenko Iu. Religioznaia politika kak mekhanizm zakrepleniia imperskikh pozitsii v Turkestanskom krae (vtoraia polovina XIX-nachalo XX vv.). www.allbest.ru (seen last 05.06.2017).

59 Lysenko Iu. Religioznaia politika kak mekhanizm zakrepleniia imperskikh pozitsii … www.allbest.ru (seen last 05.06.2017).

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to "bind on prayers" rather than "the adherence to Orthodoxy", and to apply "secret" and "hidden" propagandistic methods.[60]

One of these cautious actions was the creation of various charity activities and the involvement of Muslim women in them. More than twenty charity societies had been set up in Turkestan in the late 19th and early 20th centuries. Among them were a women's society, Jewish circle, and Lutheran Women's Association.[61]

Governor of Sirdarya region N.I. Korol'kov said that Russian female doctors who were involved in conducting a historic mission in Turkestan brought different concepts to the "constrained, uneducated and disenfranchised (powerless)" lifestyles of Muslim women.[62] Particularly, "close relationships of local women with Christian women gradually evoke the desire in Muslim women to lead a lifestyle similar to Russian women. This circumstance will absorb Christianity into their consciousness and eventually they will be affected".

S.M. Dukhovskoi, in his speech "Islam in Turkestan" (*Dovody, prepiatstvuiushchie sliianiiu, musulman s korennym russkim naseleniem, i obshii kharakter neobkhodimyx mer* — About the general nature of the evidences and the necessary actions), opposed both the 'assimilation' of Muslims, and the presence of Russian people in Turkistan; these he enumerated and gave resolute conclusions in 15 points.[63] Parts 10 and 11 of these points were directly related to the Russian government's influence on Muslim women. In particular, the following viewpoints are set out in paragraph 10: "Practice has shown that the local population does not welcome us with willingness. It's the same as treating a sick person. Medical practices such as treating the ill, caesarean sections during childbirth, removing cataracts from the eyes, and repairing the [fractures] of the bones of the legs and arms are still performed using local methods of magic.[64] Unfortunately, our medicine is in a very poor condition. How do you evaluate the service of a single doctor to hundreds of people in the *uezd*? The knowledge of a manager of the local first-aid station is very limited. It is best to have female doctors and female nurses in place of many senior paramedics known here. Female doctors and female nurses instructed by our ideas enter into the homes of indigenous people living in the neighborhood and they

60 Abdullaieva Ia. Qoraqalpog'histon khotin-qizlari: ... B. 29.

61 NAUz. f.1, op. 31.

62 According to Mukhamedov Sh. this speech was prepared by Vladimr Nalivkin but ignored by Sergey Dukhovskoi. See: Mukhamedov Sh. Istoriko-istochnikovedcheskii analiz gosudarstvennogo regulirovaniia islama ... S. 47.

63 Vsepoddanneishi doklad Turkestanskogo general-gubernatora ot infanterii Dukhovskogo. Islam v Turkestane.Tashkent.1899. NAUz. f-1, op.32, d. 384.

64 Apparently it is mentioned here that local patients were treated by local healers.

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[local residents — N.H.] value their help during difficult birth cases. Among the Muslims, our expenditure on developing our medical care will be paid off hundred times. It helps us not only to achieve our goals, but also to reach all layers of the society."

In point 11, the following conclusions were made: "The polygamous Muslim family is not like us at all. There is no friend for a woman in the house of a husband. She is a hostage, a slave and her outlook is very limited. It was formed in Turkestan on the basis of thousand-year-old rules and the Holy Quran. It is therefore dangerous to change this quickly and suddenly. Currently, influence can be done mostly by female doctors. Muslim women will begin to realize that the rules in Russian families are better. This secret issue, carried in the heart requires great caution and attention."

The report on the number of women and children treated in Russian established outpatient clinics, the types of diseases, their ages, and how many times they visited was published in the *Turkestanskiie Vedomosti* and the *Turkestanskaia tuzemnaia gazeta*. For example, from September 29, 1886 to January 1, 1888, 3793 patients applied to the Khojand outpatient treatment center 9631 times.[65] In 1888, 2918 patients applied to the Kokand ambulatory treatment facility 6889 times.[66] 1775 of these were Uzbek women and 758 were Uzbek children. There were also Kyrgyz, Tajik, Tatar, Dungan, Chinese, and Jewish women and children. Goiter and gastrointestinal disorders were common. In addition, there were various sexually transmitted diseases that were treated, including syphilis.

In the reports published in the newspapers, it is emphasized that Turkestani Muslim women should seek advice from Russian female physicians, and that the health of the mother will affect the future birth of a healthy child. The low number of local people's visits to Russian doctors is not because of the lack of trust in them, but is best explained by the fact that there were a small number of Russian doctors. In particular, there were 25 doctors and 60 medical assistants in the Samarkand, Sirdarya, and Fergana regions of Turkestan.[67]

Even Russian officials agitated local women to acquire medical education. In particular, one of the Khiva khans, namely Said Asfandiyar, went to Saint

65 ترکستان ولایتی نینک کزیتی (Turkiston viloiatining gazeti). 1888. 2nd of December, №46, №50.

66 ترکستان ولایتی نینک کزیتی (Turkiston viloiatining gazeti).1888. 2nd of December, №3.

67 Shodmonova S. "Okraina" Turkiston gazetasi va uning sahifalarida tibbiiot hamda sanitaria masalalari diskursi // Istoricheskaia nauka v kontekste intellektual'nogo razvitiia Tsentral'noi Azii. Tarikhshunoslik va manbashunoslik ocherklari.Tashkent, Fan, 2014. S. 295.

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Petersburgin June 1900, accompanied by officers Husain Bek, Muhammad Wafa, Islam Khwaja, Amankeldi Sardar, the General Staff's Colonel Gesket, Captain of cavalry Klado, Captain Belov and a court adviser Divaev.[68] He met there with an unnamed Russian Military Minister. During the conversation, the military minister advised him to teach Russian language and grammar to some young girls at the primary Russian schools and then send them to St Petersburg to attend 2-year medical assistant courses. He stated that they could later use their knowledge in their homeland to assist women during childbirth, and treat various eye diseases.

The above-mentioned information indicates that the Russian Empire in the beginning of its colonization policies had treated the issue related to the local Muslim women in Turkestan as carefully as possible. It is then possible to see that the colonial administration had been more overt (transparent) regarding this issue. In particular, Count K.K. Palen (d. 1923) sent a special commission to Bukhara too at the end of 1909 and early 1910 during the revision of Turkestan.[69] The mission of this commission was to revise the performance of the *amlak*[70] (public lands) and Jadid schools.[71] During the inspection, the members of the commission asked Bukhara *ulema* about the *shari'ah*'s view on the Jadid school of Bukhara and the wearing of hijab by women. The author states that although colonial empires knew their opinions on this matter, they claimed that the Jadid schools and the hijab were a matter of interconnectivity.[72] In particular, they questioned a mufti named Ikram who was working in Bukhara, suggesting to him: "Mullah Ikram, why do not men give fatwa to wearing hijab?" However, it is not clear from the source how the mufti responded to this question. Moreover, the information surviving from one of the prominent figures of that period, in V.P. Nalivkin's personal fund, can also serve as an example.[73] Most of the documents kept in the fund are articles about Muslim women from various newspapers. This indicates that the issue

68 Naslednik khana khivinskogo Seid Asfandiiar Tiura v S-Peterburge v 1900 godu. Iz dnevnika A.A.Divaeva. Tipografiia pri Kantseliarii general-gubernatora. 1901. Ss. 2-3.

69 Konstantin Palen was Russian statesman, governor of Vil'no Province, a member of the Russian Governing Senate. He was the head of senatorial revision of Turkestan in 1908-1910 (http://allpetrischule-spb.org/index.php?titl (last seen 28.09.2018)).

70 Amlak (Arabic plural form of 'Mulk' املاک). A form of landowning in Bukhara and Kokand.

71 س عه ینی. بوخارا ءینقلابی تهأریخی ءاوچون ماتیریالار. مهسکهو. ۱۲۲۶ یل. ۶۳-۶۴ بیت (Sadriddin Ainii. Bukhoro inqilobi tarikhi uchun materiallar. Moskva. 1926. Bb. 62-63).

72 The author refers here to the issue of unveiling of Bukhara's women.

73 NAUz. f. 1009.

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of Muslim women in Turkestan was a focus of the Russian colonial administration.

In summary, Russian authorities attempted to influence Muslim women living in Turkestan through missionary work to reduce the role of Islam in society. In addition, the colonial administration exerted other influences on Muslim women by focusing on their health and that of their families. In the colonial policies of the Russian Empire, some issues related to women's emancipation were baldly linked to colonial interests. At the same time, however, this situation also provided grounds for the emancipation of women by the Bolsheviks in the Soviet era.

It is also worth mentioning that the issues of equal rights between women and men, and the visibility of female faces in public was sensitive in the Russian colonial period as they were for Turkestan intellectuals (especially Jadids, religious scholars, and merchants). In spite of the fact that they supported women's pursuit of knowledge and literacy, they did not support radical steps, such as the unveiling of Muslim women. Some intelligentsia were adherents of women's emancipation but they did not have the courage to say it openly.

The Issue of Muslim Women's Emancipation in the Colonial and Local Press

Periodicals were an important mouthpiece of the Russian colonial policy in Turkestan. Thus, the Russian Empire established some periodicals in Central Asia. In 1912, in Russia, there were 23 Muslim printing houses. Subsequently, their number increased to 36 different Kyrgyz (Kazakh) and 40 Uzbek (Sart) publications working in them.[74] The magazines had published articles on efforts carried out in the region by Russian actors, and articles on the everyday life of local people. Among the latter articles were those on women's issues, which were of high importance. The colonial administration tried to influence the emancipation of Muslim women through distributing these periodicals.

Most of the articles on Muslim women's issues were published in local newspapers such as the aforementioned *Turkestanskiie Vedomosti* (Turkestan Gazette) and *Turkistan Viloiatining Gazeti* (The newspaper of Turkestan province), but also *Turkestanskii Kur'er* (Turkestan Courier), and *Samarkand*. Articles published in these newspapers can be divided into the following

74 Kotiukova T. 'Musul'manskii vopros' v Turkestane v nachale 20 v. // Voprosy istorii. No. 9. September, 2010/ Ss. 97-112.

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topics: girls' sales (prearranged marriages between the marrying parties); the status of women and brides; the issue of the *hijab*; the issue of emancipation.

All these issues were directly related to the liberation of Muslim women. However, as mentioned above, it is impossible to cover all issues within one article, so I will try to analyze only some of them. First of all, I would like to talk about the discussion of the complaints made by Tatar women (*Nog'ai Muslim women*) to the State Duma asking for their rights in April 1907, and the views expressed by local Muslim intellectuals on this issue. These articles had been published under the heading "*Vozrazhenie progressivnym musul'mankam*" (Objection to progressive Muslim women) on the pages of *Turkistan Viloiatining Gazeti*. In particular, the author of the article, who was unknown and published under the name of "بر مسلمان" (a Muslim), issued his or her opinion.

In the 25th issue of the *Turkistan Viloiatining Gazeti*, a regretful article was published. It had been suggested that Nog'ai Muslim women from several provincial towns made a statement to the members of the State Duma. They had made their application to the Duma and asked them to give women equal rights with men. According to the record men always walk without veils everywhere but prohibit women from doing so. These women's demands were "to open their faces everywhere in public", which was the conclusion of the article. This article gave a wider impetus to the discussion of Muslim women's emancipation. One of the people who took part in such debates was Imam Ali Buranov. He criticized the Tatar women in his article, "آخر زمان بلاسی دجال فتنه سی" (The End Times and The Antichrist). He points out that he read the earlier article and decided to write a letter in response to it, and he described the women's demand as "the trial of the end of the world as the coming of the Antichrist".[75]

The author states, "The Turkestanians are not only ashamed of publishing the issue of women's rights through newspapers, but even speaking about it". He pointed out, with regret, that he had tried to make a refutation through the newspaper *Vaqt* (Time) which was being published in Orenburg, but his efforts were ineffective. He then said that he had sent a copy of the letter to the editor of the newspaper *Turkistan Viloiatining Gazeti* following the dictates of his conscience.

He said: "If the newspaper *vaqt* was a protector of *shari'ah* and the people, then why did they not publish my letter?" He then stated: "I wrote my letter in Nogai and showed the flaws of women (natural, physical, mental)", and signed the article Imam Ali Buranov, a resident of the town of "Karmaqchi".

75 *Turkiston viloiatining gazeti*. May 31th, 1907.

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In 1908, the same author further published a satirical article entitled "An Open Letter to Those Who Are To Give Equal Rights To Women (Edification)", accompanied by the essay "The Mute Woman" in the eightieth issue of the *Turkistan Viloiatining Gazeti*. This is how he describes the purpose of publishing the story for readers: "I have given the essay 'The Mute Woman' as a lesson to those who want women to have equal rights with men and take part in market business with them. This is my attempt to influence the minds of those who support women's rights for emancipation through these stories".

Another story was published in the newspaper's issue no. 83. It tells about a certain trader named Moryubus who had a mute wife. The trader, on the advice of a close friend, shows his wife to a doctor, and she learns speaking little by little afterwards. She eventually makes a habit of interrogating her husband and shouting at him. The author compares women's liberation to the situation in the story.

The issue of *hijab* was also discussed in some other articles published in the newspaper. In particular, discussion and controversy were ignited by the articles "*Hijob Haqinda*" (About Hijab) and "*Hijob*" written by the *mufti* Muhammad Baqa Khwaja, the son of Saiid Khwaja from Samarkand. Initially, the author attempted to provide detailed information about hijab. He said: "... *hijab* is worn only in Iran, Afghanistan, and India. Women of Bukhara, Samarkand, and Tashkent also wear *hijab* and it is good. But there is no hijab among Fergana women ... the entire face is open". In contrast to this article, another satirical one entitled "A reproachful interpretation on the issue of *hijab* by the *mufti* Muhammad Baqa Khwaja" was published. This article was signed by a certain Khoqand Davron. The author strongly criticizes Muhammad Baqa, and thinks that the quotations from the Qura'nic verses and *Tafsiri Hussaini* on the pages of the newspaper are inappropriate.[76] This is due to the fact that the newspapers often end up as garbage and in dirty places, and this leads to the desacralization of these printed verses of the Qur'an. He also states: "Muhammad Baqa says that there is no practice of wearing hijab among the women of Fergana. Actually, it is not like that." Khoqand Davron accuses Muhammad Baqa further: "If Baqa hadn't had carnal desires he would not look at the faces of Fergana women".

In an article entitled "*O pakrival litsa musul'manskikh zhenshchin*" (About Muslim women's veil) by Olimzoda, a few Tatar Muslim women with open faces were mentioned who performed in a theater for a charity event organized for the Tatar girls' school in Tashkent. The author had analyzed questions of a

76 In the commentary *Tafsiri Hussaini*, the work by one of the most prominent scholars of the Temurid era, Husain Voiz Koshifii (1440-1505) is mentioned.

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Muslim *tura* (an official) who had participated in the event, and the responses given by mullahs (religious theoreticians) about the matter. The issue of gender equality between men and women had even caused the publication of an article titled "*Mojet' li zhenshchina byt kaziem* (Can a woman be *qadi*)". In it the author writes: "Some progressive Muslims say that the rights of Muslim women are equated to men's and they can be assigned to the position of a qadi. There is only one phrase in the Shari'a book *Hidaia*.[77] But the meaning is different. That is, it is not appropriate for women to be appointed to the position of a qadi".[78] The author concludes at the end of the article that a woman can't be appointed as a judge.

It should be noted that the issue of women had created a lot of controversy not only in Turkestan, but also among other scholars of Russian colonial Muslim provinces. This is an example of the debates of Tatar and Turkestani intellectuals. Specifically, such articles were published under the titles "*Strannaia logika tatarskoi gazety 'Sado'*" (The strange logic of the Tatar newspaper "Sado" [Voice]), "*Otvet gazete 'Yulduz'*" (The response to the newspaper "Yulduz" [Star]). In addition, there were articles such as "*Polozhenie kirgizskoi devushki-nevesty*" (The status of a Kirgiz bride), "*Turmushga chiqqan qizga onaning yuborilmas maktubi*" (A mother's letter to a married daughter that can't be sent), and "*Taassuflik hodisa* (*qizlar savdosi haqida*)" (A regretful event [about the girls' trade]) which were also released in newspapers.

In sum, the colonial local press had publicly raised the issue of women's emancipation for the first time. In addition, articles published in the press also served to demonstrate the real position of female Muslims residing in Turkestan and other regions of the Russian Empire.[79] Certain positive processes associated with women's emancipation in the late 19th and early 20th centuries were not solely the product of Russia's colonial policy, however. On the contrary, local intellectuals (especially the Jadids) also realized that the fate of progressive change in society was linked to the education of women and the promotion of their rights.

77 *Hidaia* by Burhaniddin al-Marghinani is mentioned here.

78 However, Bahriia Ochak, a Turkish researcher, provides information about Muslim women in the Muslim world who taught students in medieval madrassas in the Middle Ages. It is worthwhile to mention Fatima binti Muhammad (d. 1191), the daughter of Alauddin Muhammad ibn Ahmad Samarkandi (d. 1145), the famous jurist of the Hanafi madhhab of Samarkand. This woman was authorized to give fatwas at that time and was known as the "great *faqihah*". See Bahriia Ochak. *Zhenshiny-pravitelnitsy v musul'manskikh gosudarstvakh. Perevod s turetskogo Zia Buniiatova*. Moskva, Nauka, 1982.

79 It is worthwhile to note that not all the views expressed in this article are objective, but also reflect the subjective views of the mentioned authors.

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Conclusions

The analysis of some issues of Muslim women's rights in the region (in sedentary areas, i.e., where Islam's influence was dominant) during the Central Asian pre-colonial period became the basis for the following general conclusions:

- Women of the upper class were engaged not only in child rearing in the family but were also actively involved in social life;
- Women also had a certain position in the family and society, depending on their socioeconomic status and level of literacy. In particular, documents related to *waqf* and marriage issues are clear evidence of this;
- Muslim women had been active in public life though without visible participation in public; although seemingly in the shadows, they sought to use their existing rights effectively. Along with this, Muslim women strengthened their position in society through other factors, becoming a woman by experiencing having a family and bearing children.

As a result of the Russian colonization of Central Asia and the establishment of the Turkestan General-Governorship, the issue of Muslim women was regarded by the Russian administration as an important aspect of colonial policy. The Russian colonial administration actually tried to use women in order to strengthen their position in the region, and to weaken the influence of Islam to some extent on the local (mostly sedentary) population. That is to say, they attempted to influence the local Muslim women, and thus enter their families as they had similarly done through the educated Russian, Tatar, and Jewish women who had a different outlook.

At the beginning of the 20th century, the issue of the emancipation of Muslim women was raised not only in Turkistan, but also in the Turkish-Muslim world. This topic was discussed in newspapers and magazines by some local intellectuals and members of the ulema. Although the idea of expanding women's rights and their unveiling was not supported by the local people and the intellectuals, they caused wide debates. As a result, in the context of Russian colonization, individuals living in Turkestan discussed this issue widely.

Thus, during the Russian Empire, a Muslim woman's socialization mechanism in Turkestan was formed. In particular, in some central cities, this was done by exposure to Russian women's way of dressing, their freedom to act independently in daily life, and their employment in providing medical care. These qualities were admired by Muslim women. Also, the regular coverage of articles on issues such as the life of Muslim women, her role in the family and in society, also contributed to their socialization.

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